



University of
Nottingham
UK | CHINA | MALAYSIA

The Contradictions of Circularity: Critiquing the Marketing of Sustainable Products for Stakeholder Implications

Mingqin Zhang

May 2026

Catalogue

Abstract.....	2
1. Introduction	3
2. Green Premium: Incentives to Innovation VS. Social Inequality Reproduce	3
2.1. Core disputation	3
2.2. Relevant Stakeholders	4
2.3. How do stakeholders influence management decision.....	7
3. Circular Economy: Empower Consumers VS. Transfer Systematic Responsibility	8
3.1. Core disputation	8
3.2. Relevant Stakeholders	10
3.3. How do stakeholder influence management decision	12
4. Conclusion.....	13
Reference.....	15

Abstract

This literature review critically examines circular economy (CE) product marketing. Two central debates are analyzed. First, the ‘green premium’ on CE products creates distributive injustice: affluent consumers gain moral status while lower-income groups are priced out and stigmatized as ‘unsustainable’. Second, circular marketing celebrating the ‘responsible consumer’ systematically transfers unpaid labour (sorting, cleaning, transport) and moral anxiety onto households, while firms capture green reputations and cost savings. Using stakeholder theory, winners are high-income consumers and firms; losers include low-income groups, women and the environment (via rebound effects). Ethical dilemmas are assessed through utilitarian, deontological, justice and virtue ethics lenses. The review concludes that current circular marketing individualizes environmental responsibility, reinforces class inequalities and yields limited net ecological benefit. Implications for managers and policymakers are discussed.

1. Introduction

With the rise of environmental themes and growing support for sustainable development goals, public institutions have shown renewed interest in the sphere of consumption (Rumpala, 2011). This has led to a re-examination of the social relations of consumption, the changing co-dependency between production and consumption, and the integration of technology, practices and consumption (McMeekin, 2012). Against this backdrop, the circular economy (CE) has emerged as a key framework for aligning sustainable production with consumption. Adopting a critical marketing perspective, this review evaluates the actual role of CE product marketing in fostering sustainable consumption. Rather than celebrating CE as an environmental panacea, we examine two central debates: first, the ‘green premium’ as a source of class inequality or incentive to innovation; second, the narrative of responsibility transfer that imposes unpaid consumer labor or empower them. Through stakeholder and ethical analysis, we uncover the uneven distribution of benefits and burdens in circular marketing.

2. Green Premium: Incentives to Innovation VS. Social Inequality Reproduce

2.1. Core disputation

One critical point in circular products (For example, clothing made from recycle material, modular mobile phone, repairable household appliances) is that they are usually fixed with a higher price (Gleim, 2013), those premium part are often rationalized as “invest in Earth” or “sustainable choice” in marketing script. The “Green Premium” consists of the primary debate in circular economic marketing. Cycling system may send out an illusory signal about circularity, legalizing increased consumption and further accelerate material throughput, which is contradict to sustainable consumption (Stål,2017). Advocators believe that premium reflects

“Internalization of Environmental External Cost”, which provides essential economic incentives to corporates in green innovation (Fakoya, 2014; Griskevicius et al., 2010), while critics demonstrate that premium symbolize sustainable consumption into personal economic status, reproducing and deepening the inequality between consumption society. Customers, with qualified economic capital, cultural capital and time resource sheet, could participate in truly circle, systematically excluding the low-income groups (Stamos, 2020; Bourdieu, 1984). From the Utilitarian perspective, it requires to evaluate the whole benefit brought from green premium (for example, incentive to innovation, reducing wastes) and increased social inequality (Husted & Allen, 2000). If high-end circular product serves only for minority, while majority burden overall resources consumption. The net profit is possibly negative, which is inadvisable.

2.2. Relevant Stakeholders

From the Stakeholders Theory, the distribution of green premium is strongly unequal among different parties. High-income consumers are willingness to pay premiums and obtain dual effects (Carfagna, 2014). On the one hand, they will benefit from machine durability and environmental protection attributes itself (Bakker, 2014). On the other hand, when possessing “sustainable products” becomes a “conspicuous conservation” (Griskevicius et al., 2010), moral identity and society segmentation ensures them to maintain a high ethical position in environmental conversation (Carfagna et al., 2014). From a Deontological perspective, the question is not whether green premiums produce net benefits, but whether enterprises treat customers merely as means to accomplish environmental duty (Kant, 2012). Individuals with paid privilege will have the priority to claim they contributed on earth health without truly understand the effort they really put. Meanwhile, Maniates (2001) further improved that facially purchasing behavior may conceals core circular issue—changing to a sustainable lifestyle, which might trap them into a performative sustainability.

Low-income customers are in an unfavorable position. Income inequality will shape customers' consumption on sustainable goods (Qiao et al., 2020)—imply that high-income group's high consumption levels themselves represent a fundamental injustice. Low-income groups lack the economic capital to pay the premium, the cultural capital such as capability to distinguish the ecosystem label, and time resource sheet to participate in factory return repair or zero-packaging shopping (Barkemeyer, 2023; Bourdieu, 1984). From a justice ethics perspective, the green premium constitutes a form of distributive injustice: socioeconomically disadvantaged groups are systematically excluded from circular consumption while simultaneously bearing the social cost of stigmatization. Marketers construct an idealized image of the “perfect circular consumer” who diligently sorts waste, repairs products, and purchases only recycled or modular goods. Crucially, the image of perfect "responsible consumers" in marketing narratives indirectly stigmatizes people who can only be affordable to disposable bargain, denoting them as “unsustainable underlying”, neglecting the structural constraints they are faced – basic recycling facilities in community, disposable products dominate low-price market (Gregson et al., 2015). Maglicic and Vasconcelos (2025) empirically demonstrate that the uptake of environmentally friendly products is income-dependent and unequal—low-income households are often locked out of the benefits that circular products could offer, and policies that incentivize green adoption may inadvertently reproduce or even deepen this inequality. This other stigmatization does not stem from consumers' internal moral guilt but rather arises from social comparison and the labelling effects perpetuated by marketing discourse (Anguelovski, 2019; Rigolon, 2020). Emerging frameworks of “circular justice” (Careda et al., 2025) explicitly recognize that a just circular economy requires clear principles of distributive, procedural and recognitional justice to arbitrate trade-offs among stakeholders. Consequently, the circular economy risks erecting a new “green barrier”—green gentrification within the consumption sphere, transforming sustainable consumption into a privilege rather than a universal public good (Yazar, 2020)

Enterprises are the directly beneficiaries of the green premium. A virtue ethics approach shifts attention from consequences or duties to the character and intentions of the corporation (Moore, 1955). The motivation of enterprises in sustainable products is significant. Sison (2008) argues that corporate social responsibility is best understood through Aristotelian phronesis: practical wisdom that integrates individual interest with collective good, making Corporate Social Responsibility (CSR) intrinsic to virtuous practice rather than an external constraint. Bengtson and Mossberg (2023) extend this logic to green marketing, proposing a “virtue critique framework” that distinguishes performative environmental rhetoric from genuine organizational virtue. Through circular narrative, enterprises achieved higher marginal profit, brand diversification and successfully shift part environmental duty to customer’s ethical choice (Lyon & Montgomery, 2015; Gregson et al., 2015). However, Daou (2025) further argues that when environmental claims serve primarily as marketing strategy, the intention of “green washing”—and thus the moral status—of such actions is compromised. Meanwhile, enterprises will confront the risk of narrowing market as well. The overhigh premium concentrates target audience on customer with strong environmental essence and qualified economic capital, which is hard to achieve economic scale effect (Kirchherr et al., 2018). Additionally, over-reliant on green premium profit leads enterprises neglecting the research and development on cost-efficient circular solution, forfeiting mass market in long-term competition.

The government and society are in a state of contradiction. On the one hand, green premium promotes up-dating recycling technology and innovating products design (Hobson, 2016). On the other hand, aristocratic tendency in sustainable consumption excluding circular products from being reciprocal public goods. Governors over rely on circular products marketizing as a solution rather than subsidizing underlying customers or conducting public facilities to promote sustainable lifestyle will unavoidably intensify social inequality, not environmental justice (Warner and Jonathan, 2020;

Hickel, 2021).

From a justice ethics perspective, the green premium constitutes a form of distributive injustice: socioeconomically disadvantaged groups are systematically excluded from circular consumption while simultaneously bearing the social cost of stigmatization. Research indicates that majority of planetary boundary breaching responsibility are attributed to the global top 10% and 20% of consumers, respectively from developing and developed countries (Tian et al., 2024). While income inequality will shape customers' consumption on sustainable goods (Qiao et al., 2020)—imply that high-income group's high consumption levels themselves represent a fundamental injustice. Consequently, a genuinely equitable circular economy must ensure that sustainable consumption is accessible across all income strata, not served as an exclusive marker of the wealthy. In the absence of subsidies for low-income groups and universally accessible circular infrastructure, the circular economy will likely reinforce existing consumption hierarchies rather than advance environmental justice (Sheth, 2021).

2.3. How do stakeholders influence management decision

The demands of high-income customers foster enterprises confine circular products at high-end niche-market, rather than exploiting mass, low-cost circular project. Those demand signals strengthen enterprises' incentive to retaining green premium over high, maintaining sustainable product as a representative to socially environmental status, rather than truly decreasing the threshold to real circular consumption. Contradictory, enterprises lack incentives to offer affordable circular option for low-income group which are assumed as “lack of commercial appeal” due to limited purchasing power. Public opinion and pressure from consumer rights organizations may force enterprises to launch low-price circular product lines or subsidy plans. Government regulatory interventions (such as tax adjustments for green premiums or subsidies for low-priced circular products) will directly change the pricing strategies of enterprises, however, concerning to Neoclassical Economics' Theory--invention from government definitely leads “Deadweight Lost”, which leads government hesitate to adopt inventions.

Additionally, practitioners experienced multiple barriers in addressing green gentrification, which prevent them in solving it (Nesbitt, 2023).

3. Circular Economy: Empower Consumers VS. Transfer Systematic Responsibility

3.1. Core disputation

One of circular economic marketing narrative is that it usually depicts customers as “Recycles, Repairers, Sorters”, which emphasizes the customers subjective options control whole process. This framing gives rise to a second core debate—whether the promotion of circular products genuinely empowers consumers to participate in sustainable transformation or merely shifts the systemic responsibilities of recycling and reverse logistics, which should be borne by producers and municipalities, onto consumers as unpaid labor and moral burden. From a virtue ethics perspective, corporate motives matter critically: if firms genuinely commit to circular transition while designing products that are easier for consumers to participate in (rather than simply offloading responsibility), their actions possess moral virtue; but if firms deliberately exploit consumer labor to avoid their own investments, even if some recycling benefits objectively occur, the ethical evaluation should be negative. Advocators believe, empowering individuals to become active actors in a closed-loop economy, heartening customers to participate in sorted collection, circular marketing effectively enhance the public’s environmental awareness, representing a positive “Prosumer” (Ritzer & Jurgenson, 2010; Büscher and Igoe, 2013). The Butterfly Diagram of MacArthur Foundation (2019) (Figure 1) place customer and user centrally, pointing out customer decide majority of “purchase process, product service life and disposal methods”. Customers are empowered as multi-identity—consumers, users,

wearers and prodigals.

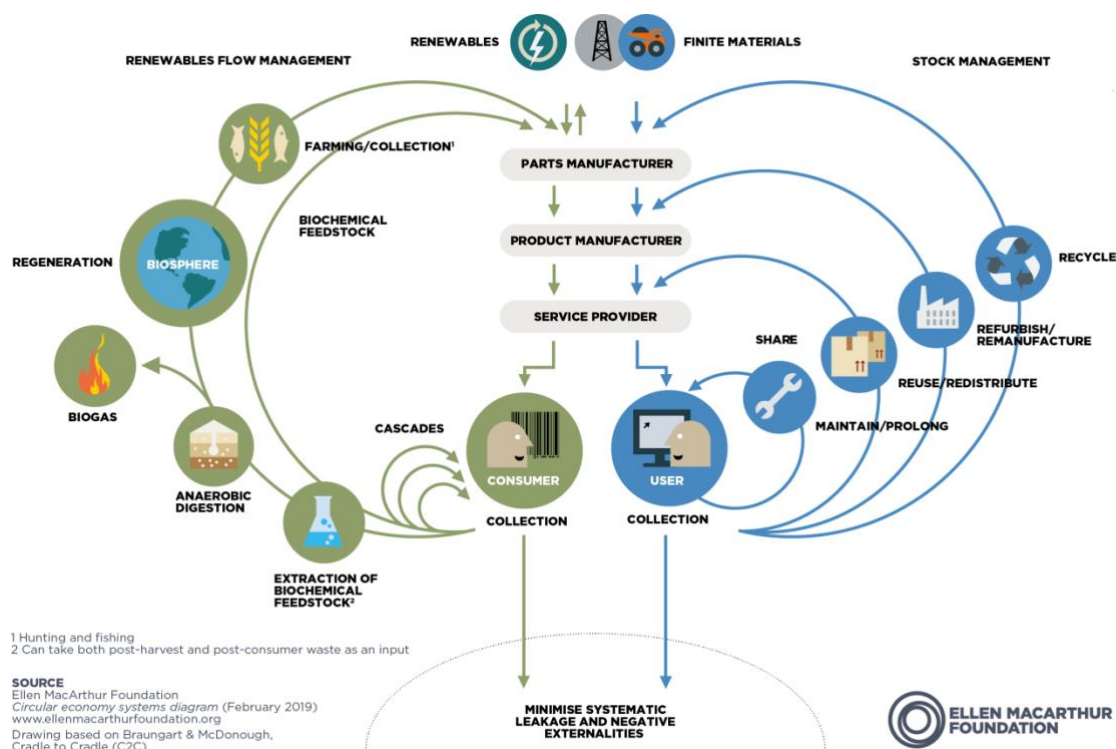


Figure 1: The Butterfly Diagram: Circularity Overview (Ellen MacArthur Foundation, 2019)

However, critics sharply contend that this narrative essentially is an underlying systematic responsibility transformation. It packed systematic recycling, reverse logistics and cost of environmental governance—which should undertake by producers and government, as customer moral duty and unpaid labor (Gregson et al., 2015; Cova & Dalli, 2009). More fundamentally, a structural tension exists between the prevailing societal values that privilege individual choice, convenience, and private ownership and the collective collaboration, resource sharing, and cultural shifts that the circular economy demands. This individualistic cultural orientation not only hinders consumers from shouldering devolved responsibilities but also fundamentally resists the systemic transformation essential for circular practices (Kuanr et al., 2021; Dupuis, 2024). Consumers are not only expected to bear additional economic costs but are also required to invest substantial time, effort and physical labor to compensate for deficiencies in production design, while enduring persistent moral anxiety. Meanwhile, firms capture green reputations while avoiding fundamental production change (Maniates, 2001;

Gregson et al., 2015).

3.2. Relevant Stakeholders

Consumers are the most direct bearers of hidden burdens in this debate. First, the circular economy imposes a new set of “consumption work” or “consumer labor” on top of traditional consumption. Cova and Dalli (2009) define this labor as unpaid activities through which consumers create value activities that were traditionally performed by firms or markets. These activities demand not only time but also space and cognitive resources. Gregson et al. (2015) show that recycling relies heavily on unpaid household labor, with consumers asked to “close the loop” without compensation. For time-poor groups (e.g., dual-earner families, low-income caregivers), such demands are nearly impossible to meet, creating implicit participation barriers in environmental discourse. From a justice ethics perspective, a just circular economy should ensure fair distribution of labor, with the most vulnerable groups not bearing the heaviest burdens (Careda et al., 2025). Therefore, although the brand's environmental protection concept sounds excellent. It is an enterprise externalization, through transferring the costs and labor to consumers or the municipal government.

Beyond material labour, consumers face sustained psychological moral pressure. A negative emotion “Eco-guilt” arising from the discrepancy between one’s environmental standards and actual consumption choices which can serve as an effective driver of sustainable consumption (Elgaaied, 2012; Sörqvist et al., 2024). Corporate marketing strategies deliberately exploit this mechanism by constructing an idealized “perfect circular consumer” image, systematically manufacturing moral anxiety, and framing the purchase of circular products as an act of moral redemption. From deontological and virtue ethics perspectives, this treats consumers merely as means to profit and lacks corporate honesty. This unattainable ideal systematically elevates consumers’ moral anxiety. However, the act of purchasing a circular product

can also trigger a “moral licensing effect” (Wang, 2023). Khan and Dhar (2006) first showed that a prior virtuous choice enhances the consumer’s positive self-concept, thereby licensing subsequent indulgent behaviour. Mazar and Zhong (2010) extended this logic to green consumption, finding that participants who bought green products subsequently acted less altruistically. This implies that a single circular purchase may inadvertently license overconsumption in other domains (e.g., fast fashion, high-carbon travel). Barkemeyer (2023) provides empirical evidence of this “indirect behavioural rebound effect”: willingness to purchase eco-labelled products was positively correlated with higher individual carbon, water and material footprints. From a utilitarian view, if rebound cancels gains, net benefit becomes questionable.

Firms are the primary beneficiaries of responsibility transfer. By shifting the costs and labor of recycling, sorting and transportation onto consumers and municipal systems, firms save substantial investments in reverse logistics infrastructure while acquiring an “environmentally friendly” brand image (Gregson et al., 2015). However, from a deontological perspective, responsibility transfer strategies violate this principle. Firms exploit consumers’ environmental willingness to save their own costs, turning consumers into “unpaid laborers” and “bearers of moral anxiety”. More subtly, by marketing the “responsible consumer” image, firms successfully relocate the solution to systemic environmental problems from the production side to individual consumption choices – consumers feel obliged to “save the planet” through their daily extra labor, while firms continue their growth-oriented production models (Maniates, 2001). However, firms also face risks: if responsibility transfer becomes too conspicuous, consumer backlash may force them to invest in reverse logistics or simplify product design. Moreover, increasingly stringent Extended Producer Responsibility (EPR) regulations in regions such as the EU are compressing firms’ strategic space for responsibility transfer (Andreoli et al., 2025).

Governments and society at large occupy an ambivalent position in this dynamic. On one hand, active consumer participation in recycling and sorting eases some pressure on municipal waste management systems (Maniates, 2001). On the other hand, the

prevalence of such “individualized solutions” allows governments to avoid investment in systemic infrastructure and regulation of producer behaviors. Maniates (2001) sharply observes that when environmental responsibility is individualized into personal consumption choices, there is little room to question the nature and distribution of institutional and political power, or how to collectively change the distribution of power and influence in society. If governments rely excessively on market-based green consumption as a solution without mandating producer responsibility through EPR legislation, they effectively condone and even encourage continued responsibility transfer. Research indicates that effective circular economies require EPR policies that hold firms accountable for the entire lifecycle of their products (Dubois, 2012; Jiang & Zhang, 2026). Yet in most countries, EPR legislation progresses slowly, partly due to corporate lobbying that shifts responsibility onto municipalities and consumers (Euractiv, 2026).

The environment also sees questionable net benefits. Due to moral licensing and rebound effects, consumers who purchase circular products may increase consumption in other areas, leading to unchanged or even higher overall resource use. Barkemeyer et al. (2023) offer a cautionary finding: eco-labelled products thrive in wealthier economies, yet these very economies exhibit higher aggregate resource consumption levels. If the circular economy remains confined to individual-level responsibility transfer without addressing structural reductions in production and consumption volumes, it risks becoming “performative sustainability” rather than genuine ecological transition.

3.3. How do stakeholder influence management decision

Consumer acceptance of complex recycling processes directly affects the feasibility of firms’ responsibility-transfer strategies. If most consumers silently accept unpaid labor (sorting, cleaning, transporting), firms have no economic incentive to invest in more

expensive but more convenient reverse logistics systems. Conversely, if consumers collectively resist overly demanding recycling requirements or pressure firms through consumer advocacy groups, firms' strategic space is significantly constrained. Therefore, from a utilitarian perspective, government must weigh whether the aggregate environmental benefits of shifting recycling labour and moral anxiety onto consumers (some resource recovery, increased awareness) outweigh the individual costs of time, effort and psychological distress. If rebound effects are widespread, the net benefit may be negative. Currently, because consumers have largely internalized the ideology of "personal environmental responsibility" and habitually view circular purchases as moral virtues (Wheeler and Glucksmann, 2015), firms can sustain low-cost, high reputation "performative circularity". Consumer silent compliance reinforces, rather than challenges, corporate-led circular narratives. Additionally, Chen (2025) illustrates that "Extended Producer Responsibility" (EPR) is a key policy tool to promote circular economy. Meanwhile, government regulation is critical: when governments implement stringent EPR legislation, firms can no longer externalize recycling costs onto society and are forced to redesign products and invest in reverse logistics.

4. Conclusion

This critical review has examined the marketing of circular economy products through two central debates, revealing systematic inequalities and unintended consequences. Synthesizing these debates, three conclusions emerge. First, circular marketing individualizes systemic responsibility, framing ecological crises as personal moral choices while leaving production-side drivers untouched. Second, stakeholder benefits are highly unequal: firms and high-income consumers are winners; low-income groups, women and the environment bear disproportionate costs. Third, voluntary market mechanisms are insufficient; mandatory interventions—extended producer responsibility, right-to-repair laws, and subsidies for inclusive circular infrastructure—

are essential.

Ultimately, current circular marketing risks becoming a legitimating discourse for business-as-usual, calming environmental anxieties through individualized consumption choices while deferring the systemic transformations that ecological limits demand.

Reference

- Andreoli TP, Silva PC, Lopes EL (2025), "Consumer boycott of greenwashing practices". *Revista de Gestao*, Vol. 32 No. 3 pp. 151–163, doi: <https://doi.org/10.1108/REGE-08-2024-0134>
- Anguelovski, I. et al. (2019) "New scholarly pathways on green gentrification: What does the urban 'green turn' mean and where is it going?" *Progress in human geography*, 43(6), pp. 1064–1086. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/0309132518803799>.
- Bakker, C., Wang, F., Huisman, J., & den Hollander, M. (2014). Products that go round: Exploring product life extension through design. *Journal of Cleaner Production*, 69, 10–16.
- Barkemeyer, R., Young, C. W., Chistyakova, N., & Davis, A. (2023). Eco-labels, conspicuous conservation and moral licensing: An indirect behavioural rebound effect. *Ecological Economics*, 204, 107649.
- Bengtson, E. and Mossberg, O. (2023) *The Virtues of Green Marketing: A Constructive Take on Corporate Rhetoric*. 1st ed. Cham: Springer International Publishing AG. Available at: <https://ebookcentral.proquest.com/lib/nottingham/detail.action?docID=30611293>.
- Büscher, B. and Igoe, J. (2013) "'Prosuming' conservation? Web 2.0, nature and the intensification of value-producing labour in late capitalism," *Journal of consumer culture*, 13(3), pp. 283–305. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/1469540513482691>.
- Careda, A.M.C., Ward, H. and Tukker, A. (2025) "Envisioning just circularity: A scoping review of normative justice claims in circular economy literature", *Journal of Circular Economy*, 3(3). Available at: [10.55845/WKAD5365](https://doi.org/10.55845/WKAD5365).
- Carfagna, L.B. et al. (2014) "An emerging eco-habitus: The reconfiguration of high cultural capital practices among ethical consumers," *Journal of consumer culture*. Edited by F. Forno and P.R. Graziano, 14(2), pp. 158–178. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/1469540514526227>.
- Corvellec, H., Stowell, A.F. and Johansson, N. (2022) "Critiques of the circular economy," *Journal of industrial ecology*, 26(2), pp. 421–432. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1111/jiec.13187>.
- Cova, B., & Dalli, D. (2009). "Working consumers: the next step in marketing theory?" *Marketing Theory*, Vol 9, Issue 3, pp. 315 – 339.

Daou, L. et al. (2025) “Greenwashing as a Barrier to Sustainable Marketing: Expectation Disconfirmation, Confusion, and Brand–Consumer Relationships,” *Sustainability*, 17(22). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.3390/su17229979>.

Davies, I.A. and Gutsche, S. (2016) “Consumer motivations for mainstream ‘ethical’ consumption,” *European journal of marketing*, 50(7/8), pp. 1326–1347. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1108/EJM-11-2015-0795>.

Dubois, M. (2012) “Extended producer responsibility for consumer waste: the gap between economic theory and implementation,” *Waste management & research*, 30(9_suppl), pp. 36–42. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/0734242X12453379>.

DuPuis, E.M. and Mulvaney, D. (2024) “Opening the black box: carbon-footprint calculators, meat consumption, and the ‘wicked problem’ of metric governance,” *Sustainability: science, practice, & policy*, 20(1). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1080/15487733.2024.2390232>.

Ellen MacArthur Foundation (2016) *Circularity overview: Butterfly diagram*. Available at: <https://www.ellenmacarthurfoundation.org/circular-economy-diagram> (Access: 22 April 2026)

Elgaaied, L. (2012) “Exploring the role of anticipated guilt on pro-environmental behavior - a suggested typology of residents in France based on their recycling patterns,” *The Journal of consumer marketing*, 29(5), pp. 369–377. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1108/07363761211247488>.

Euractiv (2026) ‘Lobbyists team up with conservatives to halt wastewater law’, Euractiv, 26 March. Available at: <https://www.euractiv.com/news/lobbyists-and-conservatives-push-to-halt-wastewater-directive/> (Accessed: 23 April 2026).

Fakoya, M.B. (2014) “Forced internalization of external environmental cost: experience of a South African Company,” *Environment, development and sustainability*, 16(3), pp. 797–807. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10668-013-9498-1>.

Garriga, E. and Melé, D. (2004) “Corporate Social Responsibility Theories: Mapping the Territory,” *Journal of business ethics*, 53(1/2), pp. 51–71. Available at : <https://doi.org/10.1023/b:busi.0000039399.90587.34>.

Gleim, M.R. et al. (2013) “Against the Green: A Multi-method Examination of the Barriers to Green Consumption,” *Journal of retailing*, 89(1), pp. 44–61. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jretai.2012.10.001>.

Gregson, Nicky, Mike Crang, Sara Fuller, and Helen Holmes. 2015. “Interrogating the

Circular Economy: The Moral Economy of Resource Recovery in the EU.” *Economy and Society* 44 (2): 218–243. doi:10.1080/03085147.2015.1013353.

Griskevicius, V., Tybur, J.M. and Van den Bergh, B. (2010) “Going Green to Be Seen: Status, Reputation, and Conspicuous Conservation,” *Journal of personality and social psychology*, 98(3), pp. 392–404. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0017346>.

Hickel, J. (2021) *Less is more: how degrowth will save the world*. London: Penguin.

Husted, B.W. and Allen, D.B. (2000) “Is It Ethical to Use Ethics as Strategy?” *Journal of business ethics*, 27(1/2), pp. 21–31. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1023/A:1006422704548>.

McCarthy, B. (2024) “Moral licensing and habits: Do solar households make negligent choices?” *Renewable & sustainable energy reviews*, 191. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.rser.2023.114213>.

McMeekin, A. and Southerton, D. (2012) “Sustainability transitions and final consumption: practices and socio-technical systems,” *Technology analysis & strategic management*, 24(4), pp. 345–361. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1080/09537325.2012.663960>.

Jiang, Y. and Zhang, X. (2026) “Product life cycle environmental regulation and corporate carbon emissions: Quasi-natural experiment from extended producer responsibility system,” *Energy economics*, 153. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.eneco.2025.109066>.

Qiao, K. and Dowell, G. (2022) “Environmental concerns, income inequality, and purchase of environmentally friendly products: A longitudinal study of U.S. counties (2010-2017),” *Research policy*, 51(4). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.respol.2021.104443>.

Kant, I., Gregor, M.J. and Timmermann, J. (2012) *Groundwork of the metaphysics of morals*. Rev. ed. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Khan, U. and Dhar, R. (2006) “Licensing Effect in Consumer Choice,” *Journal of marketing research*, 43(2), pp. 259–266. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1509/jmkr.43.2.259>.

Kirchherr, J. et al. (2018) “Barriers to the Circular Economy: Evidence From the European Union (EU),” *Ecological economics*, 150, pp. 264–272. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ecolecon.2018.04.028>.

Kuanr, A et al., (2021) “Can we anti-consume our way to sustainability? Finding answers at the intersection of cultural values” *Journal of Consumer Behavior* Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1002/cb.1914>

Martina Maglicic, Vítor V. Vasconcelos (2025) Income inequality in the uptake of environmentally friendly products, *iScience*, Volume 28, Issue 4, 112277. Available are: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.isci.2025.112277>.

Maniates, M.F. (2001) “Individualization: Plant a Tree, Buy a Bike, Save the World?” *Global environmental politics*, 1(3), pp. 31–52. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1162/152638001316881395>.

Mazar, N. and Zhong, C.-B. (2010) “Do Green Products Make Us Better People?” *Psychological science*, 21(4), pp. 494–498. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/0956797610363538>

Moore, G. (2020) *Virtue at work: ethics for individuals, managers, and organizations*. New York: Oxford University Press.

Mizrachi, M.P. and Sharon, O. (2025) “Secondhand fashion consumers exhibit fast fashion behaviors despite sustainability narratives,” *Scientific reports*, 15(1). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41598-025-19089-1>.

Nesbitt, L. et al. (2023) “Greening practitioners worry about green gentrification but many don’t address it in their work,” *Ecology and society*, 28(4). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.5751/ES-14579-280429>.

Rigolon, A. and Németh, J. (2020) “Green gentrification or ‘just green enough’: Do Park location, size and function affect whether a place gentrifies or not?” *Urban studies* (Edinburgh, Scotland), 57(2), pp. 402–420. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/0042098019849380>.

Ritzer, G. and Jurgenson, N. (2010) “Production, Consumption, Prosumption: The nature of capitalism in the age of the digital ‘prosumer,’” *Journal of consumer culture*, 10(1), pp. 13–36. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/1469540509354673>.

Rumpala, Y. (2011) “‘Sustainable consumption’ as a new phase in a governmentalization of consumption,” *Theory and society*, 40(6), pp. 669–699. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11186-011-9153-5>.

Sheth, J.N. and Parvatiyar, A. (2021) “Sustainable Marketing: Market-Driving, Not Market-Driven,” *Journal of macromarketing*, 41(1), pp. 150–165. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1177/0276146720961836>.

Sison, A.G. (2008) Corporate governance and ethics: an Aristotelian perspective. Cheltenham: Edward Elgar.

Stamos, A. et al. (2020) “Having less, giving more? Two preregistered replications of the relationship between social class and prosocial behavior,” *Journal of research in personality*, 84. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jrp.2019.103902>.

Stål, H.I. and Jansson, J. (2017) “Sustainable Consumption and Value Propositions: Exploring Product–Service System Practices Among Swedish Fashion Firms,” *Sustainable development* (Bradford, West Yorkshire, England), 25(6), pp. 546–558. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1002/sd.1677>.

Svenfelt, Å., Baraka Wadha, N. and Parekh, V. (2024) “Sustainable consumption futures: according to whom?” *Sustainability: science, practice, & policy*, 20(1). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1080/15487733.2024.2341495>.

Tian, P., Zhong, H., Chen, X. *et al.* Keeping the global consumption within the planetary boundaries. *Nature* **635**, 625–630 (2024). Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-024-08154-w>

Wang, X. et al. (2023) “Permitting immoral behavior: A generalized compensation belief hypothesis,” *The British journal of psychology*, 114(1), pp. 21–38. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1111/bjop.12593>.

Warner, J. (2020) “Prosperity without Growth: Foundations for the Economy of Tomorrow,” *The European legacy, toward new paradigms*. Abingdon: Taylor & Francis Ltd, pp. 231–233. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1080/10848770.2019.1598147>.

Wheeler, K. and Glucksmann, M. (2015) “‘It’s kind of saving them a job, isn’t it?’ The consumption work of household recycling,” *The Sociological review* (Keele), 63(3), pp. 551–569. Available at : <https://doi.org/10.1111/1467-954X.12199>.

Yazar, M. et al. (2020) “From urban sustainability transformations to green gentrification: urban renewal in Gaziosmanpaşa, Istanbul,” *Climatic change*, 160(4), pp. 637–653. Available at: <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10584-019-02509-3>.